divided about whether it was Tilaurakot in Nepal and Piprahwa-Ganwaria in India that was known by this name.

23. Mukherji (1901): 19.

24. The recently published results of the excavations conducted there in 2011 and 2012, by a team directed by Robin Coningham and Kosh Prasad Acharya, have provided radiocarbon dates that go back to the eight century BCE. For details, Coningham and Acharya, *et al*. (2013).

25. Tiwari (1996): 2–3. Also Rai (2010): 93–4. This marker stone and other archaeological remains were revealed in archaeological excavations conducted jointly by the Japan Buddhist Federation and Lumbini Development Trust between 1993 and 1996.

26. Falk (2006): 139.

27. For a discussion of Indradhvajas and their intrinsic difference in relation to Ashokan pillars, Gupta (1980): 318–20. Gupta also sees the pillars as an Ashokan innovation.

28. Pant and Jayaswal (1990–1): 49. Also see Jayaswal (1998).

29. Coningham and Acharya, *et al*. (2013).

30. This is based on what was reported in Tiwari (1996): 5–10.

31. Rummindei pillar inscription in Hultzsch (1925): 164–5.

32. A summary of these interpretations is available in Falk (2006): 179.

33. See Falk (2012): 206.

34. Falk believes this is a more likely explanation. In this context, he has drawn attention to an inscription from Kanaganahalli which bears an inscription which in translation reads: ‘Above (you see) the stupa of Ramagrama (containing) one eighth part.’ The term used for one eighth part is ‘athabhaga’. Falk (2012): 206.

35. A few of the grants made to Buddhist and Hindu temple establishments in Orissa carry such exemptions. See the Mallar plates of a Panduvamsi king to a small Buddhist monastery at Taradamshaka, as also the Santa-Bommali plates of Indravarman in Singh (1994): 253, 258.

36. Rai (2010): 96.

37. For an early description of Gotihawa, Mukherji (1901): 31.

38. Ibid.: 32.

39. Verardi and Coccia (2008): 255–6.

40. Mitra (1972): 228.